MAT439: Commutative Algebra

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Last updated: March 23, 2026

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1 Preface

These lecture notes were taken in the course MAT439: Commutative Algebra, taught by Nian Ibne Nazrul at BRAC University, as part of the BSc in Mathematics program in Spring 2026. Each lecture corresponds to a chapter in these notes.

Nothing in these notes is original (except my mistakes); almost everything here can be found somewhere in [AM69] or [Eis95]. In particular, we adopt the notation of [AM69] for notational consistency.

If you find any mistake, please report it at mh.turjoy@yahoo.com, even if it is something very small, even if you are not sure.

2 Lecture 01 (02/02/26)

This lecture provides a brief review of some of the materials covered in MAT311: Abstract Algebra, with motivations and detailed explanations in definitions and proofs omitted.

2.1 Group Theory

Definition 2.1 (Binary Operation)
Let S be a nonempty set. A *binary operation* on S is a map

$$* : S \times S \longrightarrow S.$$

We denote $*(x, y)$ by $x * y$.

Definition 2.2
Let $f : A \longrightarrow B$ be a map and let $C \subseteq A$. The *restriction of f to C* is the map

$$f|_C : C \to B$$

defined by

$$f|_C(x) = f(x) \quad \text{for all } x \in C.$$

Definition 2.3 (Group)
A *group* is an ordered pair $(G, *)$, where G is a set and $*$ is a binary operation such that:

- **Associativity:** For all $g, h, k \in G$, $(g * h) * k = g * (h * k)$.
- **Identity element:** There exists an element $e \in G$ such that for all $g \in G$, $e * g = g = g * e$.
- **Inverse element:** For each $g \in G$, there exists an element $h \in G$ such that $g * h = e = h * g$.

If $(G, *)$ is a group, then we simply say G is a group, when what $*$ is, is clear from the context. G is called *abelian*[1] if $g * h = h * g$, for all $g, h \in G$.

Proposition 2.4
Let $(G, *)$ be a group. Then

- Identity element e is unique.
- Inverse h of an element $g \in G$ is unique. So we denote $h =: g^{-1}$.

After proving these results, we can use definite article "the" before identity element and inverse of a group element.

Proof.

- Suppose there are two identity elements e_1, e_2. Then

$$e_1 = e_1 * e_2 = e_2.$$

- Let $g \in G$ and suppose h, k are two inverses of g. Then

$$h = h * e = h * (g * k) = (h * g) * k = e * k = k.$$

□

[1] Some people capitalize the letter "A" in honor of mathematician Niels Henrik Abel, who contributed enormously in the subject.

Definition 2.5 (Subgroup)
Let S be a subset of a group $(G, *)$, and $*|_{S\times S} : S \times S \longrightarrow G$ be the restriction of the map $*$. S is called a *subgroup* of G and denoted by $S \leq G$ if

- $e \in S$,
- For all $s \in S, s^{-1} \in S$,
- $\mathrm{Im}(*|_{S\times S}) \subseteq S$.

In other words, if $(S, *|_{S\times S})$ is a group by itself.

One of the philosophies in mathematics in general is: to understand an object, you should study functions from that object. Following definition is important in that sense.

Definition 2.6 (Group Homomorphism)
A map between groups $f : (G, *) \longrightarrow (H, \#)$ is called a *group homomorphism* if

$$f(g * h) = f(g)\#f(h) \quad \forall g, h \in G.$$

The set

$$\ker f := f^{-1}(\{e\}),$$

is called the *kernel* of f.

Proposition 2.7
$\ker f \leq G$.

Proof. We verify three conditions of a subring:

1.
$$\begin{aligned} & f(e_G) = f(e_G * e_G) = f(e_G)\#f(e_G) \\ \implies & f(e_G)\#(f(e_G))^{-1} = (f(e_G)\#f(e_G))\#(f(e_G))^{-1} \\ \implies & f(e_G)\#(f(e_G))^{-1} = f(e_G)\#(f(e_G)\#(f(e_G))^{-1}) \\ \implies & e_G = f(e_G) \\ & \therefore e_G \in \ker f. \end{aligned}$$

2. Let $s \in \ker f$, then $f(s) = e_H$. Then
$$\begin{aligned} & f(s * s^{-1}) = f(e_G) = e_H \\ \implies & f(s)\#f(s^{-1}) = e_H \\ \implies & e_H\#f(s^{-1}) = e_H \\ \implies & f(s^{-1}) = e_H \\ & \therefore s^{-1} \in \ker f. \end{aligned}$$

3. Let $K = \ker f$ and $s \in \mathrm{Im}(*|_{K\times K})$. Then there exists $(r, t) \in K \times K$ such that $r * t = s$. We have to prove $s \in K$.
$$f(s) = f(r * t) = f(r)\#f(t) = e_H\#e_H = e_H.$$
Therefore, $\mathrm{Im}(*|_{K\times K}) \subseteq K$.

□

Proposition 2.8
For all $g \in G$, $g\ker f = \mathrm{kef} fg$.

Generalising kernel using this key property, we define the following:

Definition 2.9 (Normal Subgroup)
A subgroup N of a group G is called *normal* if $gN = Ng$ for all $g \in G$. We denote it by $N \trianglelefteq G$.

Definition 2.10 (Coset)
Let $H \leq (G, *)$. Then for an element $g \in G$, the set

$$gH := \{g * h : h \in H\},$$

is called a *left coset* of G. Similarly,

$$Hg := \{h * g : h \in H\},$$

is called a *right coset*.

Definition 2.11 (Quotient Group)
Let $N \trianglelefteq G$. Then

$$G/N := \{gN : g \in G\},$$

is a group with group operation $\cdot$ given by

$$(gN) \cdot (hN) = (gh)N.$$

We call it a *quotient group*.

The map $\pi : G \longrightarrow G/N$ given via $g \mapsto gN$ is a group homomorphism. It is called *quotient map*. Kernel of this map is N. Hence,

Theorem 2.12
Any normal subgroup N of a group G can be written as the kernel of some group homomorphism.

Theorem 2.13 (1st Isomorphism Theorem)
Let $f : G \longrightarrow H$ be a group homomorphism. Then $G/\ker f$ is isomorphic to $\mathrm{Im} f$ by the isomorphism given via $g\ker f \mapsto f(g)$.

2.2 Ring Theory

Definition 2.14 (Ring)
A *ring* is a datum $(R, +, \cdot)$, where R is a set and $+, \cdot$ are binary operations such that:

- $(R, +)$ is an abelian group (so R has an identity element[a] denoted by 0.
- $(g \cdot h) \cdot j = g \cdot (h \cdot j), \forall g, h, j \in R$.
- $g \cdot (h + j) = g \cdot h + g \cdot j$ and $(h + j) \cdot g = h \cdot g + j \cdot g, \forall g, h, j \in R$.

[a] We call it additive identity in the context of rings.

If there exists an element $1 \in R$ such that for all $x \in R, x \cdot 1 = x = 1 \cdot x$, then 1 is called *multiplicative identity* and R is called a *ring with identity*. In this course, we are primarily interested in commutative[2] rings with identity. So, from now on, every ring in these notes is a commutative ring with identity unless stated otherwise.

Proposition 2.15
If additive and multiplicative identities of a ring R are equal, then R is the trivial ring, i.e., $R = \{0\}$.

[2] As the name of the course suggests XD

Proof. Let $x \in R$, then

$$x = x \cdot 1 = x \cdot 0 = 0 \implies R = \{0\}.$$

□

Definition 2.16 (Ring Homomorphism)
Suppose $(R_1, +_1, *_1)$ and $(R_2, +_2, *_2)$ are two rings. Then a map $f : (R_1, +_1, *_1) \longrightarrow (R_2, +_2, *_2)$ is called a *ring homomorphism* if

- $f(a +_1 b) = f(a) +_2 f(b)$,
- $f(a *_1 b) = f(a) *_2 f(b)$,
- $f(1_{R_1}) = 1_{R_2}$.

Exercise 2.17
To show that the third condition of the ring homomorphism is independent of the other twos, find an example of a map between two rings that satisfies first two conditions, but not the third one.

Answer (Instructor)**.** *An example that satisfies the conditions $f(a+b) = f(a) + f(b)$ and $f(ab) = f(a)f(b)$ but not $f(1) = 1$ is the map $f : (\mathbb{Z}, +, *) \to (\mathbb{Z}, +, *)$, $f(n) = 0$ for all n, i.e. the zero map. $f(a+b) = 0 = 0 + 0 = f(a) + f(b)$, $f(ab) = 0 = 0 \times 0 = f(a)f(b)$, but $f(1) = 0 \neq 1$.*

Definition 2.18 (Subring)
Suppose $S \subseteq R$ where $(R, +, \cdot)$ is a ring. If $(S, +|_{S\times S}, *|_{S\times S})$ is a ring by itself, then S is called a subring of R.

Definition 2.19 (Ideal)
An *ideal* I of a ring R is a subset of R and satisfies:

- I is a subgroup of $(R, +)$,
- Let $IR := \{i \cdot r : i \in I \text{ and } r \in R\}$. Then $IR \subset I$.

Example 2.20 (Principle Ideal)
Suppose $a \in R$. Then $(a) := \{a \cdot r : r \in R\}$ is an ideal, also called as *principle ideal* or ideal generated by a.[a]

[a] It seemed like every non-trivial ideal should be of this form. But Ernest Kummer first discovered ideals that were not generated by a single element, which exploded the subject.

Example 2.21
$R = \mathbb{Z}$ has an infinite number of ideals, explicitly

$$I = (n) = n\mathbb{Z}, \quad \forall\, n \geq 0.$$

In fact, every ideal of $\mathbb{Z}$ is of this form[a]. For all $n \in \mathbb{Z}$, (n) is an ideal of $\mathbb{Z}$. We now prove the converse.

Let P be an ideal of $\mathbb{Z}$. If $P = \{0\}$, then $P = (0)$.

Assume $P \neq \{0\}$. Since $P \leq \mathbb{Z}$, there exists a positive integer in P. Let

$$n = \min\{\, k \in P \mid k > 0 \,\}.$$

We claim that $P = (n)$. Since $n \in P$ and P is an ideal, for any $z \in \mathbb{Z}$,

$$zn \in P,$$

hence $(n) \subseteq P$.

Conversely, let $p \in P$. By the Euclid's Division lemma, there exist $q, r \in \mathbb{Z}$ such that

$$p = qn + r, \quad 0 \leq r < n.$$

Since $p \in P$ and $qn \in P$, and P is an ideal, we have

$$r = p - qn \in P.$$

By the minimality of n, it follows that $r = 0$. Hence

$$p = qn \in (n),$$

and therefore $P \subseteq (n)$.

Thus,

$$P = (n).$$

[a] It is very rare that when you have a ring, you can list all of its ideals.

Example 2.22 (Polynomial Ring)
Let R be a ring, x be an indeterminate and define $R[x]$ be the set of all formal sums of the form

$$\sum a_i x^i = a_n x^n + a_{n-1}x^{n-1} + \cdots + a_1 x + a_0, \quad \text{where } \{i : a_i \neq 0\} \text{ is finite.}$$

Given two polynomials $f = \sum a_i x^i$ and $g = \sum b_i x^i$ in $R[x]$, the sum of f and g is defined as

$$f + g = \sum (a_i + b_i) x^i,$$

and the product of f and g as

$$f \cdot g = \sum c_i x^i, \quad \text{where } c_i = \sum_{j,k:j+k=i} a_j b_k.$$

With this rule of addition and multiplication, $(R[x], +, \cdot)$ becomes a ring, called *polynomial ring.*[a] We can further define polynomial ring $R[x][y]$ over $R[x]$ and it turns out that $R[x][y] \cong R[x,y]$[b]. Some of the ideals of the ring $R[x,y]$ are:

- $\langle x \rangle = \{xf(x,y) : f(x,y) \in R[x,y]\} = \{$All the polynomials with degree of x *at least* $1\}$.
- $\langle x, y \rangle = \{xf(x,y) + yg(x,y) : f, g \in R[x,y]\} = \{$All the polynomials with degree of no constant term$\}$.

[a] In the definition above, each $a_i \in R$ is called the coefficients of the polynomial; a_i is the coefficient of x^i and the zero element given as the polynomial with zero coefficients.
[b] Polynomial ring of several indeterminates is not defined here though.

3 Lecture 02 (09/02/26)

Proposition 3.1
Let $\mathbb{K}$ be a field. Then every ideal of $\mathbb{K}[x]$ is principle, but it is not true in general in $\mathbb{K}[x_1, \cdots, x_n]$ for $n > 1$.

Proof. We proceed similarly as in we did in the case of $\mathbb{Z}$. But before that, we have to prove analogous Euclid's Division lemma for $\mathbb{K}[x]$.

Claim 3.2. *Let $f, g \in \mathbb{K}[x]$. If $g \neq 0$, then there exists polynomials $q, r \in \mathbb{K}[x]$ such $f = gq + r$, where* $\deg r < \deg g$.

Proof of claim. If g divides f, then $r = 0$ and we are done. If not, let $r = f - gq$ be the polynomial of least degree among all polynomials of the form $f - lg$ with $l \in \mathbb{K}[x]$. Then we must have $\deg g > \deg r$. Otherwise, let the leading term of r and g be ax^m and bx^n respectively. Then

$$r - g \cdot ab^{-1}x^{m-n} = f - gq - g \cdot ab^{-1}x^{m-n} = f - g(q + ab^{-1}x^{m-n}),$$

has smaller degree than r and is of the given form, which contradicts minimality of the degree of r. □

If $f \in \mathbb{K}[x]$, then (f) is an ideal. Conversely, if I is an ideal of $\mathbb{K}[x]$, we claim that $(g) = I$, where g is a polynomial of least positive degree in I. Clearly, $(g) \subseteq I$. Let $f \in I$, then by the Claim 3.2, there exists $q, r \in \mathbb{K}[x]$ such that

$$f = gq + r, \quad \text{where } \deg r < \deg g.$$

Here $r = 0$, otherwise, $r = f - gq \in I$, which contradicts the minimality of the degree of g. Hence, $f = gq \in (g)$, which implies $I \subseteq (g)$. Therefore, $I = (g)$.

However, in general, in $\mathbb{K}[x_1, \cdots, x_n]$ for $n > 1$, every ideal is not principle. As counter-example, we can consider the finitely generated ideal (x_1, x_2). □

3.1 Quotient Ring

Definition 3.3 (Quotient Ring)
Suppose R is a (commutative) ring (with identity), and suppose $\mathfrak{a}$ is an ideal of R. So, $\mathfrak{a}$ is an additive subgroup of the abelian group $(R, +)$[a]. $R/\mathfrak{a}$ is a quotient group where elements look like $r + \mathfrak{a}$. Define multiplication on $R/\mathfrak{a}$:

$$(r + \mathfrak{a}) \cdot (r' + \mathfrak{a}) = rr' + \mathfrak{a}.$$

Then $(R/\mathfrak{a}, +, \cdot)$ becomes a ring called *quotient ring* of R modulo $\mathfrak{a}$.

[a]For an abelian group, every subgroup H is normal, $r + H = H + r$.

Since cosets of an additive group $(R, +)$ can have multiple representatives, we have to check well-definedness of the multiplication defined above, i.e., if $r + \mathfrak{a} = h + \mathfrak{a}$ and $r' + \mathfrak{a} = h' + \mathfrak{a}$, then $(r + \mathfrak{a}) \cdot (r' + \mathfrak{a}) = (h + \mathfrak{a}) \cdot (h' + \mathfrak{a})$. Notice, $r + \mathfrak{a} = h + \mathfrak{a}$ and $r' + \mathfrak{a} = h' + \mathfrak{a} \Leftrightarrow r - h \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $r' - h' \in \mathfrak{a}$. Since $\mathfrak{a}$ is an ideal,

$$(r - h)r' \in \mathfrak{a} \implies rr' - hr' \in \mathfrak{a} \text{ and}$$

$$h(r' - h') \in \mathfrak{a} \implies hr' - hh' \in \mathfrak{a}.$$

Since $\mathfrak{a}$ is an additive subgroup,

$$\begin{aligned}
&(rr' - hr') + (hr' - hh') \in \mathfrak{a} \\
\implies &rr' + (-hr' + hr') - hh' \in \mathfrak{a} \\
\implies &rr' - hh' \in \mathfrak{a} \\
\implies &rr' + \mathfrak{a} = hh' + \mathfrak{a} \\
&\therefore (r + \mathfrak{a}) \cdot (r' + \mathfrak{a}) = (h + \mathfrak{a}) \cdot (h' + \mathfrak{a}).
\end{aligned}$$

Associativity, distributive property, existence of identity (which is $0 + \mathfrak{a} = \mathfrak{a}$) and commutativity of $(R/\mathfrak{a}, +, \cdot)$ are routine checks.

Student Question
Can we take quotient modulo an ideal of a non-commutative ring?

Answer (Instructor)**.** *Yes, we can! In that case, the ideal should be two-sided ideal. Recall, in a non-commutative ring R, an additive subgroup $\mathfrak{a}$ of R is called a* left ideal *if $R\mathfrak{a} \subseteq \mathfrak{a}$ and* right ideal *if $\mathfrak{a}R \subseteq \mathfrak{a}$. If $\mathfrak{a}$ is both left and right ideal, then we call it a* two-sided ideal. *See Example 3.4.*

Example 3.4 (Clifford Algebra)
Suppose $\mathcal{V}$ is a vector space over $\mathbb{K}$. Then its tensor algebra over $\mathbb{K}$ is

$$T(\mathcal{V}) = \bigoplus_{n \geq 0} \mathcal{V}^{\otimes n},$$

where $\mathcal{V}^{\otimes 0} := \mathbb{K}, \mathcal{V}^{\otimes 1} := \mathcal{V}, \cdots, \mathcal{V}^{\otimes n} := \mathcal{V} \otimes \cdots \otimes \mathcal{V}(n \text{ times})$.

$T(\mathcal{V})$ is a ring with multiplicative identity given by $1 \in \mathbb{K}$, which is non-commutative as $x \otimes y \neq y \otimes x$.

Now, suppose Q is a non-degenerate bilinear form on $\mathcal{V}$. Consider the ideal

$$\mathfrak{a} = \langle v \otimes v - Q(v, v) \cdot 1 \rangle_{v \in \mathcal{V}}.$$

Here $\mathfrak{a}$ is a two-sided ideal and $T(\mathcal{V})/\mathfrak{a} =: \text{Clifford}(\mathcal{V}, Q)$ is called *Clifford Algebra*, which is an example of a quotient ring of a non-commutative ring.

Proposition 3.5 (Correspondence Theorem)
Suppose R is a ring and I is is an ideal. Then there is an $1-1$ order-preserving correspondence between the ideals of R containing I and the ideals of the quotient ring R/I. The order-preserving $1-1$ correspondence is given by: if J' is an ideal of R/I, then the corresponding ideal in R is given by $\pi^{-1}(J')$.[a]

[a] π is the canonical projection map that maps each element r of R to $r+I$ in R/I.

Proof. Step (1). First we show that if J' is an ideal of the quotient R/I, then $\pi^{-1}(J')$ is an ideal in R.

Firstly, $0 \in \pi^{-1}(J')$, because $\pi(0) = I \in J'$ as J' is an ideal of R/I, so it must contain the additive identity I of R/I.

Suppose $x, y \in \pi^{-1}(J')$. So $\pi(x) = x + I, \pi(y) = y + I \in J'$. Since J' is an ideal, we have

$$\begin{aligned} &(x+I) - (y+I) \in J' \\ \implies &(x-y) + I \in J' \\ \implies &\pi(x-y) \in J' \\ \implies &(x-y) \in \pi^{-1}(J'). \end{aligned}$$

Hence, using subgroup criterion, $pi^{-1}(J')$ is an additive subgroup of R.

Also, if $r \in R$, then $r \cdot \pi^{-1}(J') \subseteq \pi^{-1}(J')$. To see that, suppose $x \in \pi^{-1}(J')$, which implies $x + I \in J'$, which implies $(r+I)(x_I) \in J'$ as $(r+I) \in R/I$, and that implies

$$rx + I \in J' \implies \pi(rx) \in J' \implies rx \in \pi^{-1}(J').$$

$\therefore \pi^{-1}(J')$ is indeed an ideal of R.

Step (2). We want to show that if J' is an ideal of R/I, then the ideal $J = \pi^{-1}(J')$ of R contains I.

Let $x \in I$, then $\pi(x) = I \in J'$, which implies $x \in \pi^{-1}(J')$. Therefore, $\ker \pi = I \subseteq \pi^{-1}(J')$.

Step (3). Lastly, we wish to prove the correspondence is an order-preserving bijection. Define two maps ϕ and $\tilde{\phi}$ as follows:

$$\begin{tikzcd} \{J \ : \ J \text{ is an ideal of } R \text{ containing } I\} \arrow[r, bend right, "\tilde{\phi}"'] & \{J' \ : \ J' \text{ is an ideal of } R/I\} \arrow[l, bend right, "\phi"'] \end{tikzcd}$$

$\phi(J') = \pi^{-1}(J')$ and $\tilde{\phi}(J) = \pi(J)$. We will prove ϕ and $\tilde{\phi}$ are inverses of each other and if $J_1' \subseteq J_2'$, then $\phi(J_1') \subseteq \phi(J_2')$.

Firstly, since π is surjective, $\pi(\pi^{-1}(J')) = J'$, equivalently, $(\tilde{\phi} \circ \phi)(J') = J'$. And for $I \subseteq J, J + I = J$, and so $\pi^{-1}(\pi(J)) = J$, equivalently, $(\phi \circ \tilde{\phi})(J) = J$. So ϕ and $\tilde{\phi}$ are inverses of each other.

Furthermore, let $x \in \phi(J_1') = \pi^{-1}(J_1')$. Then $\pi(x) \in J_1' \subseteq J_2'$. So, $x \in \pi^{-1}(J_2') = \phi(J_2')$. Hence, we have $\phi(J_1') \subseteq \phi(J_2')$, completing the proof.

□

Definition 3.6
Let R be a ring.

An element $r \in R$ is called a *zero-divisor* if there is a non-zero $y \in R$ such that $r \cdot y = 0$.

R is called an *integral domain* if it does not have any non-zero zero-divisors.

An element $r \in R$ is called *nilpotent* if $r^n = 0$ for some $n > 0$.

A *unit* $r \in R$ is an element that "divides 1" – i.e., for which there exists $y \in R, y \neq 0$ such that $xy = 1$.

R is a *field* if $1 \neq 0$ and every non-zero element is a unit.

Note 3.7

- 0 is also a zero-divisor.
- Nilpotent elements are all zero-divisors. To see that, suppose r is a nilpotent element and $r^n = 0$. If $n = 1$, then r is trivially zero-divisor. Otherwise, we have $r^{n-1} \in R$ such that $r \cdot r^{n-1} = 0$.
- The set of all units of a ring R forms an abelian group under multiplication and it is denoted by $R^\times$.
- A unit cannot be a zero-divisor in $R \neq (0)$. Suppose x is a unit with $xy = 1$. If x is also a zero-divisor, then $sx = 0$ for some $s \neq 0$.

$$sx = 0 \implies (sx)y = 0y \implies s(xy) = 0 \implies s \cdot 1 = 0 \implies s = 0 \text{ (contradiction!)}.$$

  So,
- A field is an integral domain.

Proposition 3.8
Suppose R is a ring and $R \neq (0)$. Then the following are equivalent:

1. R is a field.
2. R only has two ideals: (0) and (1).
3. Every homomorphism[a] of R to a non-zero ring is injective.

[a] Remember we require $f(1) = 1$ for a ring homomorphism f.

Proof.

- $(1) \implies (2)$. Suppose R is a field. That means, every non-zero element is a unit. Let $\mathfrak{a}$ be an ideal of R. If $\mathfrak{a} = (0)$, we are done. Otherwise, there exists non-zero $x \in \mathfrak{a} \subseteq R$. Hence, x is a unit, i.e., there exits $y \in R$ such that $xy = yx = 1$. Since $\mathfrak{a}$ is an ideal, $y \cdot x \in \mathfrak{a} \implies 1 \in \mathfrak{a} \implies \mathfrak{a} = (1) = R$.
- $(2) \implies (3)$. Suppose R has only two ideals: (0) and (1). And let $f : R \longrightarrow S \neq (0)$ be a ring homomorphism. $\ker f$ is an ideal of R, and it can be either (0) or (1) as per hypothesis. But $\ker f \neq R$ since we at least have $1_R \notin \ker f$ by definition. Hence, $\ker f = (0)$, which implies f is injective[3].
- $(3) \implies (1)$. Suppose every homomorphism of R to a non-zero ring is injective. We want to show that R is a field, i.e., every non-zero element is a unit. Suppose there is an element $x \in R$ which is not a unit. Then $(x) \neq (1)$ (because if it was (1), then that would mean for some y, $y \cdot x = 1 \implies x$ is a unit).

  Consider the canonical projection map $\pi : R \to R/(x)$ for which $\ker \pi = (x)$. Since $(x) \neq (1)$, i.e., since $(x) \neq R, R/(x) \neq (0)$. So, π is injective by the hypothesis, and so $\ker \pi = (0)$, which implies $(x) = (0) \implies x = 0$. Hence, the only non-unit in R is 0, and so every non-zero element should be a unit.

□

4 Lecture 03 (15/02/26)

4.1 Prime & Maximal Ideals

Definition 4.1 (Prime Ideal)
An ideal $\mathfrak{p}$ in R is called *prime* if $\mathfrak{p} \neq (1)$ and if $xy \in \mathfrak{p}$ implies $x \in \mathfrak{p}$ or $y \in \mathfrak{p}$.

[3] Recall from the first course in algebra: A ring homomorphism is injective iff its kernel is (0).

Example 4.2
Take the ring $R := (\mathbb{Z}, +, \times)$. Then prime ideals of R are precisely the ideals (p), where p is prime.

Because, first of all, every ideal of R is of the form (n).

And we claim that "(n) is prime ideal iff n is a prime number;" equivalently, "$ab \in (n) \implies a \in (n)$ or $b \in (n)$ iff n is a prime number;" equivalently, "$n|ab \implies n|a$ or $n|b$ iff n is a prime number." We prove that the last statement is indeed true.

Claim 4.3. *For all $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}, n|ab \implies n|a$ or $n|b$ iff n is a prime number.*

Proof of claim. Let for all $a, b \in \mathbb{Z}, n|ab \implies n|a$ or $n|b$. And suppose n is composite. Then there exists integers $a' \neq 1, b' \neq 1$ such that $n = a'b'$. Then $n = a'b' \Big| a' \frac{\text{lcm}(a',b')}{a'}$ but $a'b' \not| a'$ and $a'b' \not| \frac{\text{lcm}(a',b')}{a'}$, contradicting the hypothesis. Hence, n must be prime.

Conversely, let n be prime. If $n|a$, we are done. If $n \not| a$, then $px + ay = 1 \implies pbx + aby = b$ for some $x, y \in \mathbb{Z}$[a]. Since $p|pbx$ and $p|(ab)y$[b], therefore $p|b$. □

Therefore, only prime ideals in $\mathbb{Z}$ are principle ideals generated by prime numbers.

[a] Bezout's identity.
[b] since $p|ab$ by hypothesis.

Definition 4.4 (Maximal Ideal)
An ideal $\mathfrak{m}$ in R is called *maximal* if $\mathfrak{m} \neq (1)$ and if there is no ideal $\mathfrak{a}$ in R such that

$$\mathfrak{m} \subset \mathfrak{a} \subset R \quad \text{(strict inclusion)}.$$

In other words, the only ideal that strictly contains $\mathfrak{m}$ is (1).

Proposition 4.5
1. An ideal $\mathfrak{p}$ is prime if and only if $R/\mathfrak{p}$ is an integral domain.
2. An ideal $\mathfrak{m}$ is maximal if and only if $R/\mathfrak{m}$ is a field.

Proof.
1. Assume $\mathfrak{p}$ is a prime ideal. Let $a + \mathfrak{p}, b + \mathfrak{p} \in R/\mathfrak{p}$ and $(a + \mathfrak{p}) \cdot (b + \mathfrak{p}) = ab + \mathfrak{p} = 0$[4], and that implies $ab \in \mathfrak{p}$. Since $\mathfrak{p}$ is prime, $a \in \mathfrak{p} \implies a + \mathfrak{p} = 0$ or $b \in \mathfrak{p} \implies b + \mathfrak{p} = 0$. So, only zero-divisor in $R/\mathfrak{p}$ is 0, i.e., $R/\mathfrak{p}$ is an integral domain.

   Conversely, assume that $R/\mathfrak{p}$ is an integral domain. Let $ab \in \mathfrak{p}$. Then $0 = ab + \mathfrak{p} = (a + \mathfrak{p})(b + \mathfrak{p})$, which implies that $a + \mathfrak{p} = 0$ or $b + \mathfrak{p} = 0$, since $R/\mathfrak{p}$ is an integral domain. Thus, $a \in \mathfrak{p}$ or $b \in \mathfrak{p}$ and so $\mathfrak{p}$ is a prime ideal.

2. Suppose $\mathfrak{m}$ is a maximal ideal of R. By the Correspondence Theorem, there is a bijection between the set of ideals $\mathfrak{a}$ of R containing $\mathfrak{m}$ and the set of ideals of $R/\mathfrak{m}$. Since $\mathfrak{m}$ is maximal, the only ideals of R containing $\mathfrak{m}$ are: $\mathfrak{m}$ and R. Therefore, the only ideals of $R/\mathfrak{m}$ are: $(0), (1)$. Hence, $R/\mathfrak{m}$ has no nontrivial ideals, so it is a field.

   Conversely, suppose $R/\mathfrak{m}$ is a field. Then its only ideals are (0) and $R/\mathfrak{m}$. By the Correspondence Theorem, the ideals of $R/\mathfrak{m}$ correspond bijectively to the ideals of R containing $\mathfrak{m}$. Therefore, the only ideals of R containing $\mathfrak{m}$ are: $\mathfrak{m}$ and R. Hence, $\mathfrak{m}$ is a maximal ideal of R.

□

Corollary 4.6
Every maximal ideal is prime, but the converse does not hold true.

[4] It is clear from the context that $0 \in R/\mathfrak{p}$.

Proof. Let $\mathfrak{m}$ be a maximal ideal in R. Then $R/\mathfrak{m}$ is a field. Then $R/\mathfrak{m}$ is an integral domain automatically. Therefore, $\mathfrak{m}$ is a prime ideal.

But (0) is a prime ideal in $\mathbb{Z}$, but not maximal ideal because $(0) \subset (p) \subset (1)$ (strict inclusion). □

Theorem 4.7
Suppose $f : R \longrightarrow R'$ is a ring homomorphism, and let $\mathfrak{p}'$ be a prime ideal in R'. Then, $f^{-1}(\mathfrak{p}')$ – the preimage of the ideal is a prime ideal in R.

Proof. Suppose $xy \in f^{-1}(\mathfrak{p}')$, which implies $f(xy) \in \mathfrak{p}'$, and that implies $f(x)f(y) \in \mathfrak{p}'$, and that implies $f(x) \in \mathfrak{p}'$ or $f(y) \in \mathfrak{p}'$, and that implies $x \in f^{-1}(\mathfrak{p}')$ or $y \in f^{-1}(y)$, which proves $f^{-1}(\mathfrak{p}')$ is a prime ideal. □

But preimage of a maximal ideal may not be maximal.

Counter-example. Consider the inclusion map $\iota : \mathbb{Z} \longrightarrow \mathbb{Q}$. Since $\mathbb{Q}$ is a field, its only ideals are: (0) and (1). So (0) is a maximal ideal. But $\iota^{-1}((0)) = (0) \subset (2) \subset (1)$ is not maximal in $\mathbb{Z}$. □

Theorem 4.8 (Existence of a Maximal Ideal)
Every ring $R \neq (0)$ has at least one maximal ideal.

Proof. We use Zorn's lemma.

Theorem 4.9 (Zorn's Lemma)
Let $(S, \leq)$ be a non-empty partially ordered set [a] (also known as poset). If every chain[b] in S has an upper bound[c] in S, then S has at least one maximal element.

[a] which means that $\leq$ is a relation on S satisfying:
- $x \leq x$ for all $x \in S$,
- $x \leq y$ and $y \leq x$ implies $x = y$ for all $x, y \in S$,
- $x \leq y, y \leq z \implies x \leq z$ for all $x, y, z \in S$.

[b] A *chain* in S is a subset C of S such that for any $x, y \in C$ we have either $x \leq y$ or $y \leq x$.
[c] an element u such that $x \leq u$ for all $x \in C$

Proof of Zorn's lemma. Omitted. □

Let Σ be the set of all ideals $\mathfrak{a} \neq (1)$ and define partial order $\subseteq$ using set inclusion. So $(\Sigma, \subseteq)$ is a poset. To apply Zorn's lemma, we need to show that every chain in $(\Sigma, \subseteq)$ has an upper bound in Σ.

Suppose $\mathcal{C} := \{\mathfrak{a}_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in J}$ is an arbitrary chain. So $\mathfrak{a}_\alpha \subseteq \mathfrak{a}_\beta$ or $\mathfrak{a}_\beta \subseteq \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$ for all $\alpha, \beta \in J$. Define

$$\mathfrak{a} := \bigcup_{\alpha \in J} \mathfrak{a}_\alpha,$$

which qualifies as an ideal because $\mathfrak{a}$ is a subgroup of R and closed under multiplication by any elements of R:

- $0 \in \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$ for all $\alpha \in J$, which implies $0 \in \mathfrak{a}$.
- Suppose $x, y \in \mathfrak{a}$. So $x \in \mathfrak{a}_\alpha, y \in \mathfrak{a}_\beta$ for some $\alpha, \beta \in J$. Since $\mathfrak{a}_\alpha, \mathfrak{a}_\beta \in \mathcal{C}$, without loss of generality, let $\mathfrak{a}_\alpha \subseteq \mathfrak{a}_\beta$. Then $x - y \in \mathfrak{a}_\beta$, implying $x - y \in \mathfrak{a}$.
- Suppose $r \in R$ and suppose $x \in \mathfrak{a}$. That means $x \in \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$ for some $\alpha \in J$. Hence, $rx \in \mathfrak{a}_\alpha \subseteq \mathfrak{a}$.

Clearly, $\mathfrak{a}_\alpha \subset \mathfrak{a}$ and $\mathfrak{a} \in \Sigma$, i.e., every chain in Σ has an upper bound in Σ. Therefore, Zorn's lemma implies that Σ has a maximal element. Hence, there is at least one maximal ideal of R. □

Corollary 4.10
Every ring $R \neq (0)$ has at least one prime ideal as well.

Corollary 4.11
If $\mathfrak{a} \neq (1)$ is an ideal of $R \neq (0)$, then there exists a maximal ideal $\mathfrak{m}$ containing $\mathfrak{a}$.

Proof 1. Theorem 4.8 guarantees existence of a maximal ideal $\mathfrak{m}_q$ in $R/\mathfrak{m}$. Using Correspondence Theorem, we have a maximal ideal $\mathfrak{m}$ such that

$$\mathfrak{a} \subset \mathfrak{m} \subset R \quad \text{(former inclusion is not necessarily strict).}$$

□

Proof 2. To be written... □

Corollary 4.12
Every non-unit of a ring R is contained in a maximal ideal.

Proof. Suppose $x \in R$ is a non-unit. Then $(x) \neq (1)$ because if we had $(x) = (1)$, then there would exist $y \in R$ such that $xy = 1$, which contradicts the fact that x is a non-unit. Using Corollary 4.11, we conclude that there exists a maximal ideal $\mathfrak{m}$ such that $x \in (x) \subset \mathfrak{m}$. □

4.2 Local Rings

Definition 4.13 (Local Ring)
A ring R is called *local* if it has only one maximal ideal $\mathfrak{m}$.

Example 4.14

- all fields are local rings. because a field has only two ideals: (0) and (1), so only maximal is (0).
- $\mathbb{Z}_n$ (also denoted by $\mathbb{Z}/n\mathbb{Z}$) is a local ring if and only if $n = p^a$ for some prime p and positive integer a.

  Proof. To be written... □

Non-example 4.15
$\mathbb{Z}$ is not a local ring because all prime ideals are maximal in $\mathbb{Z}$.

Definition 4.16 (Semi-local Ring)
A ring R is called *semi-local* if number of maximal ideals in R is finite.

Example 4.17
Z_n is always semi-local since it has at least one maximal ideal and finite ideals.

Exercise 4.18
Is $\mathbb{K}[x]$ local? When is $\mathbb{K}[x]/(x^n)$ local?

5 Lecture 04 (23/02/26)

5.1 Rings of Fractions

The procedure by which one constructs the rational field $\mathbb{Q}$ from the ring of integers $\mathbb{Z}$ (and embeds $\mathbb{Z}$ in $\mathbb{Q}$) extends easily to any integral domain R and produces the *field of fractions* of R.

Definition 5.1 (Field of Fractions)
Let R be an integral domain. Define an equivalence relation $\sim$ on $R \times R \setminus \{0\}$ by:

$$(a, b) \sim (c, d) \iff ad - bc = 0.$$

Let a/b denote the set of equivalence class of (a, b). We put a field structure on $R \times R \setminus \{0\}/\sim$ — the set of equivalence classes under the relation $\sim$, by defining addition and multiplication of these "fractions" a/b in the same way as in $\mathbb{Q}$, that is,

$$a/b + c/d := (ad + bc)/bd.$$

$$a/b \cdot c/d := ac/bd.$$

The "field" $(R \times R \setminus \{0\}/\sim, +, \cdot)$ is called the *field of fractions* of R.

Now we have to check that (1) $\sim$ is an equivalence relation, (2) the operations defined above are well-defined, and (1) field of fractions of R is indeed a field:

1) **Reflexive:** $a/b \sim a/b$ as $ab - ab = 0$.

   Symmetric: $(a, b) \sim (c, d) \implies ad - bc = 0 \implies -(ad - bc) = cb - da = 0 \implies (c, d) \sim (d, a)$.

   Transitive:$(a, b) \sim (c, d)$ and $(c, d) \sim (e, f)$

   $\implies ad - bc = 0$ and $cf - ed = 0$

   $\implies (ad - bc)f = 0$ and $b(cf - ed) = 0$

   $\implies adf - bcf = 0$ and $bcf - bed = 0$

   $\implies adf - bed = 0$

   $\implies (af - be)d = 0$

   Since R is an integral domain and $d \in R \setminus \{0\}$, so d is not a zero-divisor. So $af - be = 0$, implying $(a, b) \sim (e, f)$.

2) Tedious.

3) Tedious.

This generalisation only works if R is an integral domain, because the verification that $\sim$ is transitive involves canceling, i.e., the fact that R has no non-zero zero divisor. However, there is a way around:

A *multiplicatively closed subset* of a ring R is a subset S of A such that $1 \in S$ and S is closed under multiplication: in other words, S is a sub-semigroup of the multiplicative semigroup of R.

Definition 5.2 (Ring of Fractions)
Let R be any ring, and S be a multiplicatively closed subset of it. Define an equivalence relation $\sim$ on $R \times S$ by:

$$(a, s) \sim (b, t) \iff (at - bs)u = 0 \text{ for some } u \in S.$$

Let a/s denote the set of equivalence class of (a, s), and let $S^{-1}R$ denote the set of equivalence classes under the relation $\sim$. We put a ring structure on $S^{-1}R$ by defining addition and multiplication of these "fractions" a/s in the same way as in elementary algebra, that is,

$$a/s + b/t := (at + bs)/st.$$

$$a/s \cdot b/t := ab/st.$$

The "ring" $(S^{-1}R, +, \cdot)$ is called the *ring of fractions* of R with respect to S.

We now verify (1) $\sim$ is an equivalence relation, (2) operations $+$ and $\cdot$ are well-defined, and (3) $S^{-1}R$ is a (commutative) ring (with identity):

1) Proof of reflexivity and symmetry of $\sim$ follows as before. We now show it is transitive: $(a, s) \sim (b, t)$ and $(b, t) \sim (c, u)$

$\implies (at - bs)u = 0$ and $(bu - ct)w = 0$ for some $u, w \in S$

$\implies (at - bs)v = 0$ and $(bu - ct)w = 0$ for some $v, w \in S$

$\implies atv - bsv = 0$ and $buw - ctw = 0$ for some $v, w \in S$

$\implies atvuw - bsvuw = 0$ and $buwvs - ctwvs = 0$ for some $v, w \in S$

$\implies atvuw - ctwvs = 0$ for some $v, w \in S$

$\implies (au - cs)tvw$, where $tvw \in S$, as S is multiplicatively closed.

Hence, $(a, s) \sim (c, u)$. Therefore, $\sim$ is indeed an equivalence relation.

2) Tedious.

3) Tedious.

We now discuss the concept of *localisation* of a ring R about a prime ideal $\mathfrak{p}$:

Lemma 5.3
Let $\mathfrak{p}$ be a prime ideal of R. Then $R \setminus \mathfrak{p}$ is a multiplicatively closed set.

In fact, $R \setminus \mathfrak{p}$ is multiplicatively closed iff $\mathfrak{p}$ is prime.

Proof. Since $\mathfrak{p}$ is prime, $1 \notin \mathfrak{p}$. So $1 \in R \setminus \mathfrak{p}$.

Let $x, y \in R \setminus \mathfrak{p}$, i.e., $x, y \notin \mathfrak{p}$. If $xy \notin R \setminus \mathfrak{p}$, then $xy \in \mathfrak{p}$, which implies $x \in \mathfrak{p}$ or $y \in \mathfrak{p}$, which is a contradiction. Hence, $xy \notin \mathfrak{p}$, i.e., $xy \in R \setminus \mathfrak{p}$. □

Theorem 5.4 (Localisation)
Let $\mathfrak{p}$ be a prime ideal of R, and let $S = R \setminus \mathfrak{p}$. Then $R_{\mathfrak{p}} := S^{-1}R$ is a local ring.

The process of passing from R to $R_{\mathfrak{p}}$ is called *localisation*.

Proof. Let $\mathfrak{m} := \{a/s \in R_{\mathfrak{p}} \mid a \in \mathfrak{p}\}$. We claim $\mathfrak{m}$ is the only maximal ideal of $R_{\mathfrak{p}}$.

We first prove $\mathfrak{m}$ is an actually an ideal: $0/s \in R_{\mathfrak{p}}$ because $0 \in \mathfrak{p}$. If $a/s, b/t \in \mathfrak{m}$, then $(at + bs)/st \in \mathfrak{m}$ because $a, b \in \mathfrak{p}$, so is $at + bs$. Furthermore, if $a/s \in \mathfrak{m}$ and $b/t \in R_{\mathfrak{p}}$, then $ab/st \in \mathfrak{m}$ as $a \in \mathfrak{p}$, so is ab. □

Remark 5.5
If R is an integral domain and $S = R \setminus \{0\}$, then $S^{-1}R$ is just the field of fractions of R.

The procedure of localisation of a ring gives tones of examples of local rings since every ring can be localised because every ring has at least one prime ideal (Corollary 4.10).

Example 5.6
To be written...

5.2 Local Rings – Again

Theorem 5.7
A ring R is local if and only if all the non-units form an ideal.

To illustrate usefulness of this theorem, consider $\mathbb{Z}$. Units of $\mathbb{Z}$ are: $-1, 1$. So the set of all non-units is $\{\ldots, -3, -2, 0, 2, 3, \ldots\}$, which is not an ideal. So, $\mathbb{Z}$ is not a local ring!

Proof of theorem. To be written... □

Theorem 5.8
Let R be a ring and let $\mathfrak{m}$ be a maximal ideal — such that every element of $1 + \mathfrak{m} = \{1 + m \mid m \in \mathfrak{m}\}$ is a unit. Then R is a local ring.

Proof. Since $\mathfrak{m}$ is a maximal ideal and $\mathfrak{m} \neq (1)$, we have $1 \notin \mathfrak{m}$, and $\mathfrak{m}$ contains no units.

Suppose $x \notin \mathfrak{m}$, i.e., $x \in R \setminus \mathfrak{m}$. Consider the ideal generated by x and $\mathfrak{m}$; call it $\mathfrak{a}$. Then $\mathfrak{m} \subset \mathfrak{a}$ (strictly included since $x \in \mathfrak{a}$ but $x \notin \mathfrak{m}$). By maximality of $\mathfrak{m}$, we must have $\mathfrak{a} = (1)$.

Since $\mathfrak{a}$ is generated by x and $\mathfrak{m}$, a generic element of $\mathfrak{a}$ is of the form

$$xy + t \quad \text{where } y \in R,\ t \in \mathfrak{m}.$$

Because $1 \in \mathfrak{a}$, there exist $y \in R$ and $t \in \mathfrak{m}$ such that

$$xy + t = 1.$$

Then

$$xy = 1 - t = 1 + (-t) \in 1 + \mathfrak{m}.$$

By hypothesis, every element of $1 + \mathfrak{m}$ is a unit, so xy is a unit. Hence there exists $u \in R$ such that $(xy)u = 1$, i.e., $x(yu) = 1$. Therefore x is a unit.

Thus every element not in $\mathfrak{m}$ is a unit, and so $\mathfrak{m}$ consists of all non-units. Hence R is a local ring (by the previous theorem). □

5.3 Nilradicals & Jacobson Radicals

Definition 5.9 (Nilradical)
The set $\mathfrak{N}$ of all nilpotent elements in a ring is called the *nilradical* of that ring.

Proposition 5.10
The nilradical of a ring is an ideal.

Proof. Suppose R is a ring and $\mathfrak{N} = \{x \in R : x^n = 0 \text{ for some } n > 0\}$ is the nilradical. We want to show that $\mathfrak{N}$ is an ideal, i.e., $\mathfrak{N}$ satisfies subgroup criterion and $\mathfrak{N}$ is closed under multiplication by any elements of R:

- $0 \in \mathfrak{N}$ clearly. And let $x, y \in \mathfrak{N}$. Then $x^k = 0$ and $y^n = 0$ for some $k, n > 0$.

$$(x - y)^{k+n+1} = \sum_{i=0}^{k+n+1} C_i \cdot x^r y^s \quad \text{where } r + s = k + n + 1.$$

  Now, notice that for any particular term in this expansion: it can not be the case that both $r < k$ and $s < n$ are true. So for each term either $r \geq k$ or $s \geq n$. So every term in $(x - y)^{k+n+1}$ is actually 0. So $(x - y)^{k+n+1} = 0$, implying $x - y \in \mathfrak{N}$.

- Let $x \in \mathfrak{N}$ and let $r \in R$. Then $x^k = 0$ for some $k > 0$. So

$$(rx)^k = r^k x^k = r^k \cdot 0 = 0 \implies rx \in \mathfrak{N}.$$

Hence, $\mathfrak{N}$ is an ideal R. □

Lemma 5.11
Suppose R is a ring and $\mathfrak{N}$ be the nilradical of R which is an ideal. Then $R/\mathfrak{N}$ only has one nilpotent element, namely $0 + \mathfrak{N}$.

Proof. Let $x + \mathfrak{N}$ be a nilpotent element of $R/\mathfrak{N}$. Then there exists integer $k > 0$, such that

$$(x + \mathfrak{N})^k = x^k + \mathfrak{N} = 0 + \mathfrak{N}$$

Then $x^k \in \mathfrak{N}$. So there exists integer $n > 0$, such that $x^{kn} = 0$, which implies $x \in \mathfrak{N}$. So, $x + \mathfrak{N} = 0 + \mathfrak{N}$. Since, it is true for any $x \in R$, that means any nilpotent element of $R/\mathfrak{N}$ is of the form $0 + \mathfrak{N}$, which implies $R/\mathfrak{N}$ has only one nilpotent element, namely, $0 + \mathfrak{N}$. □

Proposition 5.12
Nilradical $\mathfrak{N}$ of a ring R is the intersection of all prime ideals in R.

$$\mathfrak{N} = \bigcap_{\substack{\mathfrak{m} \text{ prime} \\ \text{in } R}} \mathfrak{p}.$$

Proof. We prove the two inclusions separately.

Step 1. $\mathfrak{N} \subseteq \bigcap_{\mathfrak{p} \text{ prime}} \mathfrak{p}$: Let $f \in \mathfrak{N}$. Then $f^n = 0$ for some $n > 0$. Let $\mathfrak{p}$ be any prime ideal of R. Since $0 \in \mathfrak{p}$, we have $f^n = 0 \in \mathfrak{p}$. Because $\mathfrak{p}$ is prime, $f \in \mathfrak{p}$ or $f^{n-1} \in \mathfrak{p}$. Repeating this argument, we eventually conclude $f \in \mathfrak{p}$. Hence f belongs to every prime ideal $\mathfrak{p}$, i.e., $\bigcap_{\mathfrak{p} \text{ prime}} \mathfrak{p}$.

Step 2. $\bigcap_{\mathfrak{p} \text{ prime}} \mathfrak{p} \subseteq \mathfrak{N}$: We prove the contrapositive: if $f \notin \mathfrak{N}$, then there exists a prime ideal $\mathfrak{p}$ such that $f \notin \mathfrak{p}$.

Suppose $f \notin \mathfrak{N}$. Then $f^n \neq 0$ for all $n > 0$. Consider the set

$$\Sigma = \{\mathfrak{a} \subset R \text{ ideal} \mid f^n \notin \mathfrak{a} \text{ for all } n > 0\}.$$

Since $f^n \neq 0$ for all n, $f^n \notin (0)$ for all $n > 0$. Therefore, $(0) \in \Sigma$, and so Σ is nonempty.

Partially order Σ by set-inclusion. If $(\mathfrak{a}_\alpha)_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}}$ is a chain in Σ, then $\bigcup_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$ is an ideal (one checks easily) and, because $f^n \notin \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$ for all α and all n, we have $f^n \notin \bigcup_\alpha \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$ for all n. Hence $\bigcup_\alpha I_\alpha \in \Sigma$ and is an upper bound for the chain.

By Zorn's Lemma, Σ has a maximal element, call it $\mathfrak{p}$. Since $\mathfrak{p}$ is a maximal ideal, so $\mathfrak{p}$ is also a prime ideal. So we have found a prime ideal $\mathfrak{p}$ that does not contain f^n for all $n > 0$, in particular, $f \notin \mathfrak{p}$.

Hence $f \notin \bigcap_{\mathfrak{p} \text{ prime}} \mathfrak{p}$, completing the proof.

□

Definition 5.13 (Jacobson Radical)
The intersection of all the maximal ideals is called the *Jacobson radical*, denoted by $\mathfrak{R}$.

$$\mathfrak{R} := \bigcap_{\substack{\mathfrak{m} \text{ maximal} \\ \text{in } R}} \mathfrak{m}.$$

It is always true that $\mathfrak{R} \subseteq \mathfrak{N}$. In extreme cases, we have $\mathfrak{R} = \mathfrak{N}$.

Theorem 5.14 (characterisation of Jacobson Radical)
$x \in \mathfrak{R}$ if and only if $1 - xy$ is a unit for all $y \in R$.

Proof. ($\Longrightarrow$) We will prove the equivalent contrapositive statement: if $1 - xy$ is not a unit for some $x \in R$, then $x \notin \mathfrak{R}$.

If $1 - xy$ is not a unit, for some $y \in R$; then there exists a maximal $\mathfrak{m}$, that contains $1 - xy$ (Corollary 4.12). Since $x \in \mathfrak{R}$, so $x \in \mathfrak{m}$, and $xy \in \mathfrak{m}$ as well. Then we also have $(1 - xy) + xy = 1 \in \mathfrak{m}$, which leads to a contradiction as maximcal ideal cannot contain $1 \in R$. So forward direction follows.

($\Longleftarrow$) Again we prove equivalent contrapositive statement: if $x \notin \mathfrak{R}$, then $1 - xy$ is not a unit for some $y \in R$.

$x \notin \mathfrak{R}$, so there is a maximal ideal $\mathfrak{m}$ that does not contain x. Since $x \notin \mathfrak{m}$ — a maximal ideal, the ideal generated by $\mathfrak{m}$ and $1 - xy$ is : (1). So we must have $xy + t = 1$, which means $t = 1 - xy \in \mathfrak{m}$. Since $\mathfrak{m} \neq (1)$, $1 - xy$ can not be unit for that particular $y \in R$. □

6 Lecture 05 Pt. 1 (25/02/26)

6.1 Operations on Ideals

We can define various operations on ideals:

Definition 6.1 (Sum of two ideals)
Suppose $\mathfrak{a}$ and $\mathfrak{b}$ are ideals in a ring R. Their *sum* $\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$ is defined as

$$\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b} := \{a + b \mid a \in \mathfrak{a}, b \in \mathfrak{b}\}.$$

It is very easy to check that $\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$ is an ideal:

Firstly, $0 \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $0 \in \mathfrak{b}$. So, $0 + 0 = 0 \in \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$. Let $a_1 + b_1, a_2 + b_2 \in \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$ with $a_1, a_2 \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $b_1, b_2 \in \mathfrak{b}$. Then $(a_1 - a_2) \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $(b_1 - b_2) \in \mathfrak{b}$. So it follows that

$$(a_1 + b_1) - (a_2 + b_2) = (a_1 - a_2) + (b_1 - b_2) \in \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b},$$

Therefore, $\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$ is a subgroup of R.

Furthermore, if $a + b \in \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$ with $a \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $b \in \mathfrak{b}$, then for any $r \in R$, we have $ra \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $rb \in \mathfrak{b}$, which implies $rx + ry = r(x + y) \in \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$. So, $\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$ is closed under multiplication by ring elements.

Example 6.2
Consider the ring $(\mathbb{Z}, +, \times)$. Then $(m) + (n) = \gcd(\text{m, n})$.

To prove that, let $d = (\gcd(m, n))$. Since $d|m, n$, therefore, $d|mx + ny$ for all $x, y \in \mathbb{Z}$. So

$$(m) + (n) = \{mx + ny \mid x, y \in \mathbb{Z}\} \subseteq (d).$$

Conversely, take $x \in (d)$. Then $x = dk$ for some $m \in \mathbb{Z}$. By Bezout's identity, there exists $x, y \in \mathbb{Z}$ such that

$$d = mx + ny \implies dk = m(xk) + n(yk) \in (m) + (n).$$

Hence, $(d) \subseteq (m) + (n)$, completing the proof.

Proposition 6.3
$\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$ is the smallest ideal that contains both $\mathfrak{a}$ and $\mathfrak{b}$.

Proof. We want to show that if $\mathfrak{c}$ is an ideal containing both $\mathfrak{a}$ and $\mathfrak{b}$, then $\mathfrak{c}$ contains $\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$.

Take $a + b \in \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$ with $a \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $b \in \mathfrak{b}$. Then $a \in \mathfrak{a} \subseteq \mathfrak{c}$ and $b \in \mathfrak{b} \subseteq \mathfrak{c}$. Since $\mathfrak{c}$ is an ideal, we have $a + b \in \mathfrak{c}$, implying, $\mathfrak{c}$ contains $\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$. □

More generally, we can define the following:

Definition 6.4 (Sum of a collection of ideals)
Let $\{\mathfrak{a}_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}}$ be an arbitrary collection of ideals in R. We can define the *sum*

$$\sum_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} \mathfrak{a}_\alpha := \left\{ \sum_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} a_\alpha \mid a_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}_\alpha \text{ and } a_\alpha = 0 \text{ for all but finitely many } \alpha \in \mathcal{A} \right\}.$$

It is straightforward to check that this is indeed an ideal, and that it is the smallest ideal of R that contains $\mathfrak{a}_\alpha$ for all $\alpha \in \mathcal{A}$.

Note 6.5
In this definition, we allowed only finitely many terms to be nonzero; because no topology has been defined on the set of ideals, so we cannot discuss the convergence of an infinite sum.

Definition 6.6 (Interseciton)
Let $\{\mathfrak{a}_\alpha\}_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}}$ be an arbitrary collection of ideals in R. Then *intersection*

$$\bigcap_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$$

is also an ideal.

The proof that $\bigcap_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$ is an ideal is very straightforward:

Firstly, for all $\alpha \in \mathcal{A}$, $0 \in \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$, so $0 \in \bigcap_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$. Moreover, take $x, y \in \bigcap_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$. Then for all for all $\alpha \in \mathcal{A}$, $x, y \in \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$, implying $x - y \in \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$. Hence, $x - y \in \bigcap_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$.

Furthermore, suppose $r \in R$, and $x \in \bigcap_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$. Then for all $\alpha \in \mathcal{A}, x \in \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$, implying $rx \in \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$. Thus $rx \in \bigcap_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} \mathfrak{a}_\alpha$.

Example 6.7
Again, consider the ring $(\mathbb{Z}, +, \times)$. $(m) \cap (n) = (\mathrm{lcm}(m, n))$.

To show that, let $l = \mathrm{lcm}(m, n)$. Since l is multiple of both m, n, we have $(l) \subseteq (m)$ and $(l) \subseteq (n)$. Hence, $l \subseteq (m) \cap (n)$.

Conversely, let $k \in (m) \cap (n)$. Then m and n both divides k.

Claim 6.8. *If $m|k$ and $n|k$, then $l = lcm(m, n)|k$.*

Proof. Write the prime factorizations

$$m = \prod P_i^{a_i}, \quad n = \prod P_i^{b_i}, \quad k = \prod P_i^{c_i}.$$

Since $m|k$ and $n|k$, we have $a_i \le c_i$ and $b_i \le c_i$ for all i. Thus

$$\mathrm{lcm}(m, n) = \prod P_i^{\max(a_i, b_i)}.$$

Because $\max(a_i, b_i) \le c_i$ for all i, it follows that

$$\mathrm{lcm}(m, n)|k.$$

□

So $\mathrm{lcm}(m, n)|k$, which implies $k \in (\mathrm{lcm}(m, n))$. So $(m) \cap (n) \subseteq (l)$.

Therefore, $(m) \cap (n) = (l) = (\mathrm{lcm}(m, n))$.

Definition 6.9 (Product of Two Ideals)
Suppose $\mathfrak{a}, \mathfrak{b}$ are two ideals in R. Then their *product* $\mathfrak{ab}$ is defined as

$$\mathfrak{ab} := \left\{ \sum_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} a_\alpha b_\alpha \mid a_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}, b_\alpha \in \mathfrak{b} \text{ and } a_\alpha b_\alpha = 0 \text{ for all but finitely many } \alpha \in \mathcal{A} \right\}.$$

We now check that $\mathfrak{ab}$ is indeed an ideal:

Firstly, $0 \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $0 \in \mathfrak{b}$. So $0 \cdot 0 = 0 \in \mathfrak{ab}$. Moreover, suppose $\sum_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} a_\alpha b_\alpha, \sum_{\beta\in\mathcal{B}} a'_\beta b'_\beta \in \mathfrak{ab}$ where $a_\alpha, a'_\beta \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $b_\alpha, b'_\beta \in \mathfrak{b}$, and let $\mathcal{C} = \mathcal{A} \sqcup \mathcal{B}$ be the disjoint union of $\mathcal{A}, \mathcal{B}$.

Then

$$\sum_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} a_\alpha b_\alpha - \sum_{\beta\in\mathcal{B}} a'_\beta b'_\beta = \sum_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} a_\alpha b_\alpha + \sum_{\beta\in\mathcal{B}} (-a'_\beta) b'_\beta = \sum_{\gamma\in\mathcal{C}} a''_\gamma b''_\gamma,$$

where $a''_\gamma = \begin{cases} a_\alpha & \text{if } \gamma \in \mathcal{A} \\ -a'_\beta & \text{if } \gamma \in \mathcal{B} \end{cases}$ and $b''_\gamma = \begin{cases} b_\alpha & \text{if } \gamma \in \mathcal{A} \\ b'_\beta & \text{if } \gamma \in \mathcal{B} \end{cases}$. And clearly, $a''_\gamma \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $b''_\gamma \in \mathfrak{b}$, and $a''_\gamma b''_\gamma = 0$ for all but finitely many $\gamma \in \mathcal{C}$.

Furthermore, suppose $r \in R$, and $\sum_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} a_\alpha b_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}\mathfrak{b}$ with $a_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}, b_\alpha \in \mathfrak{b}$. Then $ra_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}$ as well. Since the sum is finite, we can use repeated distributive law of ring R to write

$$r\left(\sum_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} a_\alpha b_\alpha\right) = \sum_{\alpha\in\dashv} r(a_\alpha b_\alpha) = \sum_{\alpha\in\dashv} (ra_\alpha) b_\alpha, \text{ where } ra_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}, b_\alpha \in \mathfrak{b}.$$

This definition can be generalised to finitely many ideals:

Definition 6.10 (Product of Finitely Many Ideals)
Suppose $\{\mathfrak{a}_1, \cdots, \mathfrak{a}_n\}$ is a finite collection of ideals in a ring R. Then

$$\mathfrak{a}_1 \cdots \mathfrak{a}_n := \left\{ \sum_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} a_{1_\alpha} \cdots a_{n_\alpha} \mid a_{k_\alpha} \in \mathfrak{a}_k \text{ and } a_{1_\alpha} \cdots a_{n_\alpha} = 0 \text{ for all but finitely many } \alpha \in \mathcal{A} \right\}.$$

Multiplication distributes over sum.

Lemma 6.11 (Distributivity for Product and sum)
$\mathfrak{c}(\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}) = \mathfrak{c}\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{c}\mathfrak{b}$ for ideals $\mathfrak{a}, \mathfrak{b}, \mathfrak{c}$ in ring R.

Proof. Suppose $x \in \mathfrak{c}(\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b})$ Then $x = \sum_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} c_\alpha(a_\alpha + b_\alpha)$ where $a_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}, b_\alpha \in \mathfrak{b}, c_\alpha \in \mathfrak{c}$

$$x = \sum_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} c_\alpha(a_\alpha + b_\alpha) = \sum_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} (c_\alpha a_\alpha + c_\alpha b_\alpha) = \sum_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} c_\alpha a_\alpha + \sum_{\alpha\in\mathcal{A}} c_\alpha b_\alpha \in \mathfrak{c}\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{c}\mathfrak{b}.$$

(Note, we could use distributive law and split the sum because we are working with finite summands.)

Therefore, $\mathfrak{c}(\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}) \subseteq \mathfrak{c}\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{c}\mathfrak{b}$.

The other inclusion could be proved similarly. □

However, intersection does not distribute over sum in general. Best we have in this direction is the following:

Lemma 6.12 (Modular Law for Intersection and Sum)
$\mathfrak{c} \cap (\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}) = \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{b}$ for ideals $\mathfrak{a}, \mathfrak{b}, \mathfrak{c}$ in ring R if $\mathfrak{a} \subseteq \mathfrak{c}$ or $\mathfrak{b} \subseteq \mathfrak{c}$ or

Proof. Given $\mathfrak{a} \subseteq \mathfrak{c}$ or $\mathfrak{b} \subseteq \mathfrak{c}$ is true. Without loss of generality, suppose $\mathfrak{a} \subseteq \mathfrak{c}$ is true.

Let $x \in \mathfrak{c} \cap (\mathfrak{b} + \mathfrak{c})$. Then $x \in \mathfrak{c}$ and $x \in \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$. Then $x = a + b$ for some $a \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $b \in \mathfrak{b}$. Since $\mathfrak{a} \subseteq \mathfrak{c}$, we have $a \in \mathfrak{c}$. So $b = (a + b) - a \in \mathfrak{c}$ as we already had $x = a + b \in \mathfrak{c}$. Ultimately we have, $a \in \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{a}$ and $b \in \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{b}$. Therefore, $a + b \in \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{b}$. So we have proven $\mathfrak{c} \cap (\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}) \subseteq \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{b}$.

To show the other inclusion, let $x \in \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{b}$. Then $x = a + b$ for some $a \in \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{a}$ and $b \in \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{b}$. That means $a, b \in \mathfrak{c}$ and $a \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $b \in \mathfrak{b}$. So $a + b \in \mathfrak{c}$ and $a + b \in \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$. So $x = a + b \in \mathfrak{c} \cap (\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b})$, proving $\mathfrak{c} \cap (\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}) \supseteq \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{b}$. □

However, intersection does distribute over sum in $\mathbb{Z}$ unconditionally.

Exercise 6.13
Show that $\mathfrak{c} \cap (\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}) = \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{c} \cap \mathfrak{b}$ for ideals $\mathfrak{a}, \mathfrak{b}, \mathfrak{c}$ in ring $\mathbb{Z}$.

Proof. Since all the ideals in $\mathbb{Z}$ are principle, $\mathfrak{a} = (m), \mathfrak{b} = (n), \mathfrak{c} = (k)$ for some $m, n, k \in \mathbb{Z}$

Using Example 6.2 and Example 6.7 we can reduce problem to proving the equality of ideals

$$(\mathrm{lcm}(k, \gcd(m, n))) = (\gcd(\mathrm{lcm}(k, m)), \mathrm{lcm}(k, n)),$$

which further reduce the problem to showing the equality

$$\mathrm{lcm}(k, \gcd(m, n)) = \gcd(\mathrm{lcm}(k, m)), \mathrm{lcm}(k, n) \tag{1}$$

So, for each prime P, if exponent of P in the prime factorisation of both sides are equal, then we are done. We now compare exponents of primes on both sides of Equation 1:

Let prime factorisation of m, n, k as follows:

$$m = \prod_{P \text{ prime}} P^{\alpha}, \quad n = \prod_{P \text{ prime}} P^{\beta}, \quad k = \prod_{P \text{ prime}} P^{\gamma}, \quad \text{where } \alpha, \beta, \gamma \text{ are on-negative integers.}$$

For a particular prime P, let exponent of P in m, n, k are α, β, γ respectively. Then exponent of prime P on the left-side is:

$$\max\{\gamma, \gcd(m, n)\} = \max\{\gamma, \min\{\alpha, \beta\}\}.$$

Similarly, exponent of prime P on the right-side is:

$$\min\{\max\{\gamma, \alpha\}, \max\{\gamma, \beta\}\}.$$

We claim that both exponents are are indeed equal:

Claim 6.14. $\max\{\gamma, \min\{\alpha, \beta\}\} = \min\{\max\{\gamma, \alpha\}, \max\{\gamma, \beta\}\}$.

Proof of claim. Assume without loss of generality that $\alpha \leq \beta$. Then $\min\{\alpha, \beta\} = \alpha$. So left-hand side becomes: $\max\{\gamma, \alpha\}$

For the right-side, since $\alpha \leq \beta, \max\{\gamma, \alpha\} \leq \max\{\gamma, \beta)\}$. Therefore, $\min(\max\{\gamma, \alpha\}, \max\{\gamma, \beta)\} = \max\{\gamma, \alpha\}$. Thus both sides are equal. □

Therefore, $\max\{\gamma, \min\{\alpha, \beta\}\} = \min\{\max\{\gamma, \alpha\}, \max\{\gamma, \beta\}\}$, which completes the proof. □

Proposition 6.15
Suppose $\mathfrak{a}$ and $\mathfrak{b}$ are ideals in R. Then $(\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b})(\mathfrak{a} \cap \mathfrak{b}) \subseteq \mathfrak{a}\mathfrak{b}$.

Proof. Let $x \in (\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b})(\mathfrak{a} \cap \mathfrak{b})$. Then

$$x = \sum_{\alpha \in A} x_\alpha y_\alpha,$$

where $x_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$ and $y_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a} \cap \mathfrak{b}$.

Since $y_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a} \cap \mathfrak{b}$, we have $y_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $y_\alpha \in \mathfrak{b}$.

Also, because $x_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b}$, we may write $x_\alpha = x_\alpha^{\mathfrak{a}} + x_\alpha^{\mathfrak{b}}$, where $x_\alpha^{\mathfrak{a}} \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $x_\alpha^{\mathfrak{b}} \in \mathfrak{b}$. Thus,

$$x = \sum_{\alpha \in A} (x_\alpha^{\mathfrak{a}} + x_\alpha^{\mathfrak{b}}) y_\alpha = \sum_{\alpha \in A} x_\alpha^{\mathfrak{a}} y_\alpha + \sum_{\alpha \in A} x_\alpha^{\mathfrak{b}} y_\alpha.$$

Since $x_\alpha^{\mathfrak{a}} \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $y_\alpha \in \mathfrak{b}$, we have $x_\alpha^{\mathfrak{a}} y_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}\mathfrak{b}$. Similarly, $x_\alpha^{\mathfrak{b}} \in \mathfrak{b}$ and $y_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}$, so $x_\alpha^{\mathfrak{b}} y_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}\mathfrak{b}$.

Hence each term lies in $\mathfrak{a}\mathfrak{b}$, and therefore $x \in \mathfrak{a}\mathfrak{b}$. □

Again, for in $\mathbb{Z}$, the above statement holds true in both direction, which can be proven easily using similar arguments as Exercise 6.13.

Moving on, notice, if $m, n \in \mathbb{Z}$ are coprime, then using Example 6.2, we can conclude that $(m) + (n) = (1) = \mathbb{Z}$. We generalise this statement for any ring R, and give the following definition:

Definition 6.16 (Coprimality of Two Ideals)
Two ideals $\mathfrak{a}, \mathfrak{b}$ in R are said to be *coprime* to each other if $\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b} = (1)$

If $\mathfrak{a}, \mathfrak{b}$ are coprime, then it will happen that there exists $a \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $b \in \mathfrak{b}$ such that $a + b = 1$.

Definition 6.17 (Direct Product of Rings)
Suppose $A_1, A_2, \ldots, A_n$ are all commutative rings with multiplicative identities. Then their *direct product*

$$A = \prod_{i=1}^{n} A_i$$

is the set of all sequences $x = (x_1, \ldots, x_n)$ with $x_i \in A_i$. A is a commutative unital ring with pointwise addition and multiplication.

We have projections $\pi_i : A \longrightarrow A_i$ defined by $\pi_i(x) = x_i$; they are ring homomorphisms.

Proposition 6.18
Let R be a ring and $\mathfrak{a}_1, \mathfrak{a}_2, \ldots, \mathfrak{a}_n$ ideals of R. Define homomorphism

$$\Phi : R \longrightarrow \prod_{i=1}^{n} (R/\mathfrak{a}_i)$$

by the rule $\Phi(x) = (x + \mathfrak{a}_1, \ldots, x + \mathfrak{a}_n)$. Then

i. If $\mathfrak{a}_i, \mathfrak{a}_j$ are coprime whenever $i \neq j$, then the product $\mathfrak{a}_1 \cdots \mathfrak{a}_n = \bigcap_{i=1}^{n} \mathfrak{a}_i$.

ii. Φ is surjective if and only if $\mathfrak{a}_i$ and $\mathfrak{a}_j$ are coprime whenever $i \neq j$.

iii. Φ is injective if and only if $\bigcap_{i=1}^{n} \mathfrak{a}_i = (0)$.

Proof of (i). We use induction on n.

Base case: $\mathbf{n = 2}$. Suppose $\mathfrak{a}$ and $\mathfrak{b}$ are coprime, i.e. $\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b} = R$. Then there exist $x \in \mathfrak{a}$ and $y \in \mathfrak{b}$ such that $x + y = 1$.

First, $\mathfrak{a}\mathfrak{b} \subseteq \mathfrak{a} \cap \mathfrak{b}$, since if

$$z = \sum_{\alpha} x_\alpha y_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}\mathfrak{b} \quad (x_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a},\ y_\alpha \in \mathfrak{b}),$$

then each $x_\alpha y_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}$ and in $\mathfrak{b}$, hence $z \in \mathfrak{a} \cap \mathfrak{b}$.

Conversely, $(\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b})(\mathfrak{a} \cap \mathfrak{b}) \subseteq \mathfrak{a}\mathfrak{b}$, in general using Proposition 6.15. And since $\mathfrak{a} + \mathfrak{b} = (1) = R$, we obtain $R(\mathfrak{a} \cap \mathfrak{b}) \subseteq \mathfrak{a} \cap \mathfrak{b} \subseteq \mathfrak{a}\mathfrak{b}$. Thus,

$$\mathfrak{a} \cap \mathfrak{b} = \mathfrak{a}\mathfrak{b}.$$

Induction step. Assume the state be true for some $k \geq 2$. We want to show that the statement is also true for $n = k + 1$.

Suppose $\mathfrak{a}_1, \ldots, \mathfrak{a}_{k+1}$ are pairwise coprime.

By the induction hypothesis,

$$\mathfrak{a}_1 \cdots \mathfrak{a}_k = \bigcap_{i=1}^{k} \mathfrak{a}_i.$$

It suffices to show that

$$\left(\bigcap_{i=1}^{k} \mathfrak{a}_i\right) \quad \text{and} \quad \mathfrak{a}_{k+1}$$

are coprime.

Since each $\mathfrak{a}_i$ is coprime with $\mathfrak{a}_{k+1}$, for each $i = 1, \ldots, k$ there exist $x_i \in \mathfrak{a}_i, y_i \in \mathfrak{a}_{k+1}$ such that $x_i + y_i = 1$.

Consider

$$x := x_1 x_2 \cdots x_k \in \prod_{i=1}^{k} \mathfrak{a}_i.$$

Since $x_i = 1 - y_i$, we have

$$x = \prod_{i=1}^{k} (1 - y_i) = 1 + y,$$

where $y = -(y_1 + \cdots + y_k) + \sum_{1 \le i < j \le k} y_i y_j + \cdots (-1)^k y_1 \cdots y_k \in \mathfrak{a}_{k+1}$ (because the expansion consists of sums of products of the y_i's).

Thus,

$$x + (-y) = 1,$$

with $x \in \bigcap_{i=1}^{k} \mathfrak{a}_i, (-y) \in \mathfrak{a}_{k+1}$.

Hence,

$$\left(\bigcap_{i=1}^{k} \mathfrak{a}_i\right) + \mathfrak{a}_{k+1} = (1),$$

so they are coprime.

Applying the case $n = 2$, we obtain

$$\bigcap_{i=1}^{k+1} \mathfrak{a}_i = \left(\bigcap_{i=1}^{k} \mathfrak{a}_i\right) \cap \mathfrak{a}_{k+1} = (\mathfrak{a}_1 \cdots \mathfrak{a}_k)\mathfrak{a}_{k+1} = \mathfrak{a}_1 \cdots \mathfrak{a}_k \mathfrak{a}_{k+1}.$$

By induction, the proof is complete. □

To be continued...

7 Lecture 06 (02/03/26)

7.1 Modules and Module Homomorphisms

"One of the things which distinguishes the modern approach to Commutative Algebra is the greater emphasis on modules, rather than just ideals. The extra "elbow-room" that this gives makes for greater clarity and simplicity. For instance, an ideal $\mathfrak{a}$ and its quotient ring $A/\mathfrak{a}$ are both examples of modules and so, to certain extent, can be treated on an equal footing."[AM69]

Definition 7.1 (Left R-module)
Let R be a ring (commutative, as always). A *left R-module* is an ordered-pair (M, μ), where M is an abelian group and μ is a left R-action, i.e., a mapping of $R \times M$ into M (we denote $\mu(r, m)$ by rm) subject to the following axioms:

i) $r(m_1 + m_2) = rm_1 + rm_2$ and $(r_1 + r_2)m = r_1 m + r_2 m$ (distributivity)

ii) $1_R m = m$ (unitarity)

iii) $r_1(r_2 m) = (r_1 r_2)m$ (associativity)

for all $r, r_1, r_2 \in R$ and $m_1, m_2, m \in M$.

As always, we will just say M is an R-module if there is no ambiguity about the left R-action μ. Also the left R-action is sometimes referred as *scalar multiplication*.

Giving an ableian group M a left R-module structure is the same as defining a unital ring homomorphism from R to $\mathrm{End}(M)$, where $\mathrm{End}(M)$ is the endomorphism ring of the abelian group M. So there is an equivalent definition of module that goes as follows:

Definition 7.2 (Left R-module—Alternative)
A *left* R-module is an abelian group M together with a ring homomorphism $R \longrightarrow \mathrm{End}(M)$.

Example 7.3

1) If R is a field $\mathbb{K}$, then R-module is just a $\mathbb{K}$-vector space. So R-modules can be seen as generalisation of $\mathbb{K}$-vector spaces.
2) A ring $(R, *)$ is closed under ring multiplication, so we can treat the map $* : R \times R \longrightarrow R$ as a left R-action on R. In this sense, every ring R is an R-module.
3) Even—let $\mathfrak{a}$ be an ideal of $(R, *)$. Then $\mathfrak{a}$ is an additive subgroup of R. And by definition, $\mathrm{Im}(*|_{R\times\mathfrak{a}}) \subseteq \mathfrak{a}$. So we can treat $* : R \times \mathfrak{a} \longrightarrow \mathfrak{a}$ as a left R-action on $\mathfrak{a}$. So every ideal $\mathfrak{a}$ of a ring R is an R-module.
4) Also quotient ring $R/\mathfrak{a}$, with left R-action $\mu : R \times R/\mathfrak{a} \longrightarrow R/\mathfrak{a}$ such that $r(x + \mathfrak{a}) = rx + \mathfrak{a}$ is an R-module.
5) A $\mathbb{Z}$-module is nothing but an abelian group.

We have structure preserving map between modules that are analogous to linear transformations of $\mathbb{K}$-vector spaces.

Definition 7.4 (R-module Homomorphism)
A map from $f : M \longrightarrow N$ between R-modules is an *R-module homomorphism* if $f(m_1+m_2) = f(m_1)+f(m_2)$ and $f(rm) = rf(m)$ for all $m_1, m_2, m \in M$ and $r \in R$.

Kernel and *image* of an R-module homomorphism $f : M \longrightarrow N$ is defined as expected:

$$\ker f := \{m \in M \mid f(m) = 0_N\} \text{ and } \mathrm{im}\, f := \{n \in N \mid f(m) = n \text{ for some } m \in M\}.$$

The set of all R-module homomorphisms between two R-modules M and N is denoted by $\mathrm{Hom}_R(M, N)$.[5] $\mathrm{Hom}_R(M, N)$ can be given the structure of an R-module as follows:

Suppose $f, g \in \mathrm{Hom}_R(M, N)$. Then addition is defined pointwise: $(f + g)(m) := f(m) + g(m)$ and left R-action is defined as $(rf)(m) := rf(m)$, where $r \in R$ and $m \in M$. It is trivial to check that the axioms of an R-module is satisfied.

Lemma 7.5
Composition of two R-module homomorphisms is again an R-module homomorphism.

Proof. Let M, N, P be R-modules. Suppose $f : M \to N$ and $g : N \to P$ are R-module homomorphisms. We show that $g \circ f : M \to P$ is an R-module homomorphism.

Let $x, y \in M$ and $r \in R$. Then

$$(g \circ f)(x + y) = g(f(x + y)) = g(f(x) + f(y)) = g(f(x)) + g(f(y)) = (g \circ f)(x) + (g \circ f)(y),$$

so $g \circ f$ is additive. Also,

$$(g \circ f)(rx) = g(f(rx)) = g(rf(x)) = rg(f(x)) = r(g \circ f)(x).$$

Thus $g \circ f$ preserves scalar multiplication. Therefore, $g \circ f$ is an R-module homomorphism. □

[5] $\mathrm{Hom}_R(M, N)$ is always a set.

Proposition 7.6
Let g, f, h be R-module homomorphisms between modules M', M, N, N' as follows:

$$\begin{tikzcd} M' \arrow[r, "g"] \arrow[rr, bend right, "f \circ g"'] & M \arrow[r, "f"] \arrow[rr, bend left, "h \circ f"] & N \arrow[r, "h"] & N' \end{tikzcd}$$

Then every R-module homomorphism $g : M' \longrightarrow M$ induces an R-module homomorphism

$$\tilde{g} : \mathrm{Hom}_R(M, N) \longrightarrow \mathrm{Hom}_R(M', N) \text{ via } f \mapsto f \circ g.$$

And every R-module homomorphism $h : N' \longrightarrow N$ induces an R-module homomorphism

$$\tilde{h} : \mathrm{Hom}_R(M, N) \longrightarrow \mathrm{Hom}_R(M, N') \text{ via } f \mapsto h \circ f.$$

Proof. Only thing to check here is composition of two R-module homomorphisms is again an R, which follows from Lemma 7.5. □

Remark 7.7
For any module M there is a natural isomorphism $\mathrm{Hom}_R(R, M) \cong M$: any R-module homomorphism $f : R \longrightarrow M$ is uniquely determined by $f(1)$, which can be any element of M.

7.2 Submodules & Quotient Modules

Definition 7.8 (Submodule)
Let (M, μ_L) be an R-module, and let M' be a subgroup of M such that $\mathrm{im}(\mu_L|_{R\times M'}) \subseteq M'$, i.e., $\mu_L|_{R\times M'} : R \times M' \longrightarrow M'$ is a left R-action on M'. Then $(M, \mu_L|R \times M')$ is called a *submodule* of (M', μ_L). Or simply M' is a submodule of M when there is no ambiguity about the left R-action.

Definition 7.9 (Quotient Module)
Let M' be a submodule of left R-module M. Then M' is normal in M as subgroup. The quotient group M/M' then inherits an R-module structure from M, defined by the left R-action: $r(m + M') := rm + M$. The R-module M/M' is called *quotient module* of M by M'.

We have to check the left R-action defined as above is well-defined and satisfies the axioms of a left R-module:

To check well-definedness, let $r \in R$, and let $m, m' \in M$ be two representitives of a same coset in M/M', i.e., $m + M' = m' + M'$. We have to prove that

$$r(m + M') = r(m' + M'), \text{ i.e., } rm + M' = rm' + M'.$$

$m + M' = m' + M'$ implies $m - m' \in M'$. Since M' is a submodule, it is closed under left R-action. So is $r(m - m') \in M'$. Using distributivity of left R-action over addition, we have $r(m - m') = rm - rm' \in M'$, implying $rm + M' = rm' + M'$.

It is a trivial matter to check M/M' together with left R-action defined above indeed satisfies module axioms.

Proposition 7.10
Let $f : M \longrightarrow N$ be an R-module homomorphism. Then $\ker f$ and $\mathrm{im}\, f$ are sobmodules of M, N respectively.

Proof. f is a group homomorphism between M and N. So from group theory we know,

$$\ker f \leq M \quad \text{and} \quad \mathrm{im}\, f \leq N.$$

So we just have to check closure under left R-action:

Let $r \in R$ and $m \in \ker f$. Then $f(rm) = rf(m) = r \cdot 0 = 0$, which imiplies $rm \in \ker f$.

And let $n \in \operatorname{im} f$. Then $f(m) = n$ for some $m \in M$. $rf(m) = f(rm) = rn$. Hence, $rn \in \operatorname{im} f$ as well. □

Since $\operatorname{im} f$ is a submodule of N, we define so-called *cokernel* of f as

$$\operatorname{Coker}(f) := N/\operatorname{im} f$$

which is a quotient module of N.

7.3 Operations on Submodules

Most of the operations on ideals considered in Lecture 05 Part 1 and Lecture 05 Part 2 have their counterparts for modules.

Definition 7.11 (Sum of Submodules)
Let M be an R-module and let $\{M_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}}$ be an arbitrary collection of submodules of M. Their *sum* is defined as follows:

$$\sum_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} M_\alpha := \left\{ \sum_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} x_\alpha, \text{ where } x_\alpha \in M_\alpha \text{ and } x_\alpha = 0 \text{ for all but finitely many } \alpha \in \mathcal{A} \right\}$$

which is a submdule of M.

$\sum_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} M_\alpha$ is the smallest submodule of M which contains all the M_α's, as expected.

Definition 7.12 (Intersection of Submodules)
Let M be an R-module and let $\{M_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}}$ be an arbitrary collection of submodules of M. Their *intersection* $\bigcap_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} M_\alpha$ is an submodule of M as well.

We cannot in general define the *product* of two submodules, but we can define the product $\mathfrak{a}M$, where $\mathfrak{a}$ is an ideal of R and M is an R-module as follows:

$$\mathfrak{a}M := \left\{ \sum_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} a_\alpha x_\alpha \mid a_\alpha \in \mathfrak{a}, x_\alpha \in M \text{ and } a_\alpha m_\alpha = 0 \text{ for all but finitely many } \alpha \in \mathcal{A} \right\}.$$

$\mathfrak{a}M$ is a submodule of M.

If N, P are submodules of an R-module M, we define $(N : P)$ to be the set of all $a \in R$ such that $aP \subseteq N$. It is an ideal of R. In particular, $(0 : M)$ is called the *annihilator* of M, which is also denoted as $\operatorname{Ann}(M)$.

Definition 7.13 (Faithful Module)
An R-module is *faithful* if $\operatorname{Ann}(M) = 0$.

7.3.1 [AM69] Exercise 2.2 (solved)

Exercise 2.2 from [AM69]:

Exercise 7.14 (Exercise 2.2) i) $\operatorname{Ann}(M + N) = \operatorname{Ann}(M) \cap \operatorname{Ann}(N)$.

ii) $(N : P) = \operatorname{Ann}((N + P)/N)$.

Solution. i) $\operatorname{Ann}(M + N) \subseteq \operatorname{Ann}(M) \cap \operatorname{Ann}(N)$: Let $r \in \operatorname{Ann}(M + N)$. Then, for all $m \in M$ and $n \in N$, $r(m + n) = 0$. In particular, $r(m + 0) = rm = 0$ and $r(0 + n) = rn = 0$, implying $r \in \operatorname{Ann}(M)$ and $r \in \operatorname{Ann}(N)$, which further implies $r \in \operatorname{Ann}(M) \cap \operatorname{Ann}(N)$.

$\mathrm{Ann}(M+N) \supseteq \mathrm{Ann}(M) \cap \mathrm{Ann}(N)$: A generic element of $M+N$ looks like $m+n$, where $m \in M$ and $n \in N$. If $r \in \mathrm{Ann}(M) \cap \mathrm{Ann}(N)$, $rm = 0$ and $rn = 0$, implying $r(m+n) = rm + rn = 0$. Therefore, we have $r \in \mathrm{Ann}(M+N)$ as well.

ii) Let $r \in (N : P)$. Then $rP \subseteq N$, i.e., $rp \in N$ for all $p \in P$. An element of $(N+P)/N$ looks like $n+p+N$, where $n \in N$ and $p \in P$. Since $rn \in N$ and $rp \in N$, so $rn + rp \in N$. Hence we have

$$r(n+p+N) = r(n+p) + N = rn + rp + N = 0 + N.$$

Hence, $r \in \mathrm{Ann}((N+P)/N)$.

Conversely, let $r \in \mathrm{Ann}((N+P)/N)$. Then $r(n+p+N) = r(n+p) + N = 0 + N$, which implies, $r(n+p) = rn + rp \in N$. Since $rn \in N$, so $rp = rp + rn + (-rn) \in N$, which is true for all $p \in P$. Therefore, $r \in (N : P)$.

□

8 Lecture 07 (04/03/26)

8.1 Generation of Modules

Let M be a left R-module and $m \in M$. Then

$$\langle m \rangle := Rm = \{rm \mid r \in R\}$$

is a submodule of M *generated by* m.

Suppose $\{x_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}}$ is an arbitrary subset of M, and that $M = \sum_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} Rx_\alpha$. Then M is said to be *generated by the set* $\{x_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}}$. An R-module is *finitely generated* if it generated by a finite set.

8.2 Direct Product & Direct Sum

Definition 8.1 (Direct Product)
Suppose $\{M_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}}$ is an arbitrary collection of R-modules. Then their *direct product* is the R-module

$$\prod_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} M_\alpha := \{(m_\alpha)_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} \mid m_\alpha \in M_\alpha \text{ for all } \alpha \in \mathcal{A}\}$$

equipped with component-wise addition and scalar multiplication.

Definition 8.2 (Direct Sum)
Suppose $\{M_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}}$ is an arbitrary collection of R-modules. Then their *direct sum* is the R-module

$$\bigoplus_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} M_\alpha := \{(m_\alpha)_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} \mid m_\alpha \in M_\alpha \text{ and all but finitely many } m_\alpha' s \text{ are zero}\}$$

equipped with component-wise addition and scalar multiplication.

Remark 8.3
If the indexing set $\mathcal{A}$ is finite, then direct product and direct sum coincide.

8.3 Freely Generated Modules

Definition 8.4
An R-module M is free if

$$M \cong \bigoplus_{\alpha \in \mathcal{A}} M_\alpha, \quad \text{where each } M_\alpha \cong R \text{ as } R\text{-modules.}$$

Remark 8.5
A finitely generated free module is isomorphic to $R \oplus \cdots \oplus R = R^n$.

Proposition 8.6
M is finitely generated R-module if and only if M is isomorphic to a quotient of R^n for some integer $n > 0$.

Proof. ($\implies$) Suppose M is finitely generated. Then there exists $x_1, \ldots, x_n \in M$ such that

$$m \in M \implies m = \sum_{i=1}^{n} r_i x_i; \quad r_i \in R.$$

Define

$$\Phi : \bigoplus_{i=1}^{n} R \longrightarrow M$$

$$(r_1, \ldots, r_n) \mapsto \sum_{i=1}^{n} r_i x_i.$$

It is immediate that Φ is an R-module homomorphism and Φ is surjective.

Using first isomorphism theorem, we have

$$\left(\bigoplus_{i-1}^{n} R\right) \Big/ (\ker \Phi) \cong M.$$

($\impliedby$) Suppose $M \cong \left(\bigoplus_{i=1}^{n} R\right)/N$ for some submodule N via an isomorphism Φ.

$$\begin{tikzcd} \bigoplus_{i=1}^{n} R \arrow[r, "\pi"] \arrow[rr, bend right, "\Phi \circ \pi"'] & \left(\bigoplus_{i=1}^{n} R\right)/N \arrow[r, "\Phi"] & M \end{tikzcd}$$

$\{e_i\}_{i=1}^{n}$ is a generating set for $\bigoplus_{i=1}^{n} R$, so $\{(\Phi \circ \pi)(e_i)\}$ is a generating set of M since $\Phi \circ \pi$ is surjective. $\square$

Proposition 8.7
Suppose M is finitely generated R-module, and let $\mathfrak{a}$ be an ideal of R. Let ϕ be an R-module endomorphism such that $\phi(M) \subseteq \mathfrak{a}M$. Then ϕ satisies an equation of the form

$$\phi^n + \phi^{n-1} a_1 + \cdots + a_n = 0$$

where $a_1, \ldots, a_n \in \mathfrak{a}$.

Proof. Let $x_1, \ldots, x_n$ be generators of M. Then each $\phi(x_i) \in \mathfrak{a}M$, so that we have $\phi(x_i) = \sum_{j=1}^{n} a_{ij} x_j (1 \leq i \leq n; a_{ij} \in \mathfrak{a})$, i.e.,

$$\sum_{j=1}^{n} (\delta_{ij}\phi - a_{ij}) x_j = 0$$

where δ_{ij} is Kronecker delta function, and that gives us the following matrix equation:

$$[\delta_{ij}\phi - a_{ij}] \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ \vdots \\ x_n \end{pmatrix} = 0.$$

Multiplying adjoint matrix of $[\delta_{ij}\phi - a_{ij}]$ both sides, we have

$$\begin{aligned}
&\mathrm{Adj}[\delta_{ij}\phi - a_{ij}][\delta_{ij}\phi - a_{ij}] \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ \vdots \\ x_n \end{pmatrix} = 0 \\
\implies &\det\left([\delta_{ij}\phi - a_{ij}]\right)[\delta_{ij}\phi - a_{ij}]^{-1}[\delta_{ij}\phi - a_{ij}] \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ \vdots \\ x_n \end{pmatrix} = 0 \\
&\text{(because for all } n \times n \text{ invertible matrices } M, \det(M)M^{-1} = \mathrm{Adj}(M)) \\
\implies &\det([\delta_{ij}\phi - a_{ij}]) \begin{pmatrix} x_1 \\ \vdots \\ x_n \end{pmatrix} = 0.
\end{aligned}$$

So, it follows that $\det([\delta_{ij}\phi - a_{ij}])$ annihilates each x_i, hence is the zero endomorphism of M. Expanding out $\det([\delta_{ij}\phi - a_{ij}])$ gives us an equation of the required form. □

References

[AM69] Michael Francis Atiyah and Ian G. MacDonald. *Introduction to Commutative Algebra*. Addison-Wesley Publishing Company, 1969.

[Eis95] David Eisenbud. *Commutative Algebra: with a View Toward Algebraic Geometry*. New York: Springer-Verlag, 1995. ISBN: 978-0387942681.